CHAPTER V

In the course of our exposition we have considered in detail the various arguments for and against Arthāpatti as a distinct source of knowledge or as an independent pramāṇa and it is needless to repeat those arguments here. The present researcher is convinced that Arthāpatti may be accepted as a distinct form of knowledge. The foregoing scrutiny of the Nyāya position makes it plain that the validity of Arthāpatti as a distinct means of knowledge remains unaffected inspite of the unsparing attack from the Nyāya side. The vehement opposition to Arthāpatti is not founded on valid grounds, probably it is based on a firm conviction that the number of pramāṇas cannot be in excess of the four enumerated by Gautama and rooted on a spirit of unwillingness to admit what comes from rival camps.

There has been a prolonged controversy as to the relation of Arthāpatti with Anumāna. An important point to note, however, is that even those who would like to have it included within Anumāna are ready to accept that it is a valid mode of knowledge. It is not necessary for my purpose to go into the details of this discussion. I think that the position of the controversialists on

the subject may be summarised by saying that whereas all of them agree in recognising the epistemological value of Arthāpatti and in giving it a place of independence as an epistemological method, some of them believe that logically it can be reduced to the vyatireki form of the Anumāna. As Datta in his exposition on the subject in "Six Ways of knowledge" and Randle in his "Indian Logic in the Early schools" have shown, "it cannot be reduced to inference and neither can all inference be reduced to it", and we should accept it as an independent method of knowledge.

It may be interesting however, to enquire into the specific logical nature of Arthāpatti. It appears that the logic implied in it is neither exactly the same as that of immediate inference, or of syllogism, or of inference either of the Western type or of Indian type. There are certain fundamental differences between Anumāna and Arthāpatti which make it impossible for us to reduce either of them to the other. It cannot be reduced to inference as the Naiyāyikas and the Sāṁkhyas endeavour to do. The reason for this, however, is not, as the Advaitins suppose, that there is no such thing as Vyatireki inference, to which Arthāpatti may possibly be reduced. The Advaita Vedāntin lose their case against those who prove that vyatireki is a genuine type of inference, or reduce Arthāpatti to some other kind of inference like the hypothetical-

-categorical or the disjunctive-categorical syllogism. The real reason, is the Bhāṭṭas point out, that Arthāpatti cannot be reduced to any kind of inference.

It may be seen at first view that both of them involve the same process of reasoning. In Arthāpatti we pass from the knowledge of an observed phenomenon to that of an unobserved phenomenon without which it cannot be explained. In inference also we pass from the observed smoke to the unobserved fire as that which alone explains the smoke. But a closer view of the matter reveals certain important and unmistakable differences between the two. In inference we proceed from the gamaka or the evidentiary fact to the gamya or the evidenced fact, while in Arthāpatti we pass from the gamya or the fact to be evidenced and explained to the gamaka or that which evidences and explains it.

Again, Arthāpatti arises when there is doubt or contradiction[1] in the mind, and we try to free the mind from it by discovering an assumption which dissolves the conflict. For instance, on not finding Devadatta at home while being certain, on some other evidence, that he is alive, we have to assume that he is out. Without this assumption there is a conflict between the knowledge of his absence from home and that of his being alive. It is only when we light upon the alternative idea that he may be out that we can reconcile the two. Again, there is

conflict between the knowledge that a mán fasts by day and that he is stout, till the idea strikes us that he may be eating at night. Now the assumption in each of these cases is justified and is a valid piece of knowledge, because the two facts, between which there is an apparent conflict, are known to be certain (so that the conflict cannot be possibly got over by rejecting one of them), and because the fact assumed is the only one that can explain away the conflict. Hence while in Anumāna we pass from an undoubted fact (niścita gamaka) to its invariably concomitance, in Arthāpatti we proceed from a doubtful fact (saṁdig-dha gamaka) to something which explains it and frees us from doubt and uncertainty.

When this analysis of the process of Arthāpatti is accurately understood, it is easily found that it cannot be treated as a case of Anumāna. It will be admitted by all that in Anumāna we know the mark (or the middle term) first and ascertain the major term, through that, afterwards. But it would be found that this does not hold good if Arthāpatti is put in the form of an inference. If Arthāpatti were an inference what would be the mark? To go back to one of the instances given above, we cannot say that mere absence from home can serve as the mark for inferring that the man is out, since he may be dead and altogether non-existent; neither can we say that the mere

fact of being alive is a mark of his being out, since he may be at home. We must say, therefore, that the fact of his absence from home related with that of his being out. But we find that the relation of these two facts constituting the mark is not possible without the assumption that he is out; for until that alternative comes to the mind, life and absence from home appear incompatible. That is to say, the knowledge of the mark presupposes already the knowledge of the fact to be proved, and nothing remains to be proved by the inference. Hence the attempt to reduce Arthāpatti to inference fails,[2] being vitiated by a petitio principii.

The fundamental condition of all inference is the relation of vyāpti or invariable concomitance between the major and the middle term. In every inference the conclusion follows from a universal proposition which is the result of a previous induction. The knowledge of the universal proposition is derived from the uncontradicted experience of agreement in presence or in absence between the middle and the major term. In any inference we apply a universal proposition, which is already known, to a particular case. To reduce Arthāpatti to inference we must, therefore, show that here our knowledge of the unobserved fact follows from a universal proposition which is already known by induction. The Naiyāyikas and others

would say that the knowledge given by Arthāpatti does follow from certain universal propositions. That Devadatta eats at night follows from the universal propositions "A man who does not eat at night while fasting by day is not fat". Similarly, the fact that he is out follows from the proposition, "A living man is either at home or out of it".

What mainly concerns us in this connection is whether vyāpti exists at all between non-existence in the house and existence outside and how far the Nyāya disputants are justified in their views. The Nyāya concept of vyāpti is based on what is known to be sāmānādhikaraṇya, the characteristic of having the same locus. Vyāpti is not a bare unqualified relation. It is an invariable relation obtaining between the probans and the probandum, both existing in one and the same locus. In other words the probans and the probandum must be concomitant or co-existing. It must be remembered that it is only this relation of co-existence that plays the role of an instrumental cause in the emergence of inferential knowledge. In the example under consideration Devadatta's non-existence occurs in the house and his existence occurs elsewhere outside. Existence and non-existence of Devadatta occurs

in different locus i.e. there is no Sāmānādhikaraṇya between existence outside the non-existence of Devadatta in the house. In the absence of sāmānādhikaraṇya, it is needless to point out, the relation between existence outside and non-existence in the house cannot be characterised as vyāpti or invariable concomitance.

Existence of a non-existensive entity (mūrta) at one place necessitates its non-existence at other place. When one occurs the other also must occur i.e. there exists a necessary relation (niyatasambandha) between the two. Or the occurence of one at one place is inconceivable without the simultaneous occurrence of the other at another place, i.e. one cannot occur separately from or independently of the other. It follows that there exists an inseparable relation (avinābhāvasambandha) between the two. It is an undeniable fact that necessary relation or inseparable relation obtains even between things that are non-concomitant (vyadhikaraṇa) and instances where this relation exists are available in abundance in our day to day experience. For instance, the rising and setting of the sun. When the sun is rising at one place it is setting at another place. But rising and setting do not occur at one and the same place. The relation which is absolutely independent of sāmānādhikaraṇya may be called "necessary relation" or "inseparable relation". Vyāpti

is not identical with Avinābhāva; it is something more than that. As observed earlier it is avinābhāva qualified by sāmānādhikaraṇya.

As the relation between existence outside and non-existence in the house is not one of vyāpti, the knowledge of existence outside issuing from the knowledge of non-existence in the house cannot be inferred (anumiti). The validity of our experience of the knowledge of the existence of Devadatta outside the house cannot be questioned. The resulting knowledge must be given a different name, say Arthāpatti.

The Mīmāṁsakas and the Vedāntins can conveniently draw out the distinction between inference and presumption through the difference in the instrumental causes that generate them. The knowledge arising out of mere avinābhāva is presumption whereas the one that arises out of invariable concomitance (vyāpti) is inference.

The Naiyāyikas of the early times either missed the difference between avinābhāva and vyāpti or perhaps deliberately ignored it. Udayana asserts that if the knowledge of one out of two inseparably related entities is responsible to give rise to the knowledge of the other entity then the relation between the two is to be deemed as

vyāpti. The knowledge of one thing, not invariably concomitant with the other, cannot possess the knowledge of the other.[3] Against this glaring difference between avinābhāva and vyāpti, Udayana's position can hardly sustain.

Udayaṇa, Jayanta, Gangeśa and a host of Nyāya-vaiśeṣika philosophers of later times contend that Arthāpatti is identical with Anumāṇa of the kevalavyatireki type. Udayaṇa affirms that what is Arthāpatti according to the Mīmāṁsakas is none other than Vyatireka concomitance; the difference is only in name.[4]

Negative (Vyatireka) concomitance is pressed into service when no positive (anvaya) concomitance between the probans (hetu) and the probandum (sādhya) is available. For example, Earth differs from other categories (itarabhinna). This difference from other categories exists only in the earth. If one wants to infer difference from other categories with respect to earth (minor term) (the pakṣa) he must possess with him, beforehand, a knowledge of that special characteristic, of earth, which is invariably concomitant with "difference from other categories" (itarabhedavyāpya). Since itarabheda and smell are exclusively present only in earth we cannot come across an instance (anvaya dṛṣṭānta) other than earth where we can observe agreement in presence (anvayasahacara) so as to be able to arrive at the positive universal proposition

"Whatever has smell is different from the rest". But there are instances like water, fire etc., where we can observe agreement in absence (vyatirekasahacara) and arrive at the negative universal proposition. Whatever is not different from others (water, fire etc.) has no smell". Difference from other categories, in earth, will have to be inferred only from the negative universal proposition.

None that is not different from earth possesses smell. Earth has smell. Therefore earth is different from other categories. Now it remains for us to see whatever Arthāpatti can be satisfactorily explained as a case of inference of the kevalavyatireki type and Devadatta's existence outside can be inferred from a knowledge of kevala vyatireka or the purely negative concomitance. It is well known that inference of the kevalavyatireki type starts with a purely negative proposition. Again positive proposition. "Whichever does not exist in the house exists outside" when transformed into a negative proposition will assume the form "whichever does not exist outside is not non-existent in the house. This amounts to say "whichever does not exist outside the house exists in the house. Here non-existence outside and the non-existence of non-existence do not occur in one and the same locus, i.e. the locus of non-existence is outside the house and the locus of the non-existence of non-existence is in the

house. It appears that there is no sāmānādhikaraṇya and hence no vyāpti.

ii

Regarding the other and in fact a more important aspect of the issue is whether the knowledge of universal concomitance between the absence sādhya and the absence of hetu, i.e. vyaptireka vyāpti yields the knowledge of the universal concomitance between the hetu and sādhya i.e. anvya-vyāpti, and generates an inference through the latter, it must be said an affirmative reply to that by the Naiyāyikas amounts to a surrender of their position on a few of their basic positions as the following consideration would show.

In refuting the view that Arthāpatti is postulation produced by doubt the Naiyāyikas have said that the sāmānyatodṛshṭa produces the same result when aided by tarka, sāmānya todṛshṭa unaided by tarka produces only a disjunction like "Devadatta is either dead or living", which results only in doubt. But with the help of tarka it produces the definite knowledge of Devadatta's existence outside.[5] But what is tarka? Gautama defines it as a reasoning to know the truth when there is doubt.[6] It is a reductio ad absurdum. It is attribution of hetvabhāva by supposing sādhyābhāva. For the classical example, the

mountain contains fire because there is smoke, the tarka would be of the form, if it does not contain fire there would have been no smoke. The Naiyāyikas do not treat tarka as a separate pramāṇa or even as a form of syllogism (Anumāṇa) but only as an aid to vyāpti.

But how is this tarka different from what we call vyatirekavyāpti? The latter is the concomitance of the sādhyābhāva. But tarka also runs: Had there been sādhyābhāva there would have been hetvābhāva. Indeed there is difference between the two modes of expression. When expressed as a vyāpti there is an 'is', and when expressed as a tarka there is a 'would have been'. But 'would have been' is based upon 'is'. It is not even an implication of 'is', though we may say that it is an application. It is just an immediate inference, the contrapositive of the original anvayavyāpti. The contrapositive of "All S is P" is "All not P is not S"; thus the contrapositive of "wherever there is smoke there is fire" is "whenever there is absence of fire there is absence of smoke". Tarka in the classical anvayavyatireka example would be: If there is not fire there would not have been smoke; but there is smoke: (and the Naiyāyikas continue) hence this smoke must have been without cause and eternal (nitya).

The Naiyāyika does not seem to proceed further; if he does there would be difficulties. Supposing the question

is asked: what is the harm if smoke is without a cause and eternal? He would have to say that it conflicts with what we see. If it does, the conclusion would be: There is fire. Now, if the conclusion can be obtained through tarka itself, the latter must be treated as a pramāṇa or it itself would be inference. If, on the other hand, he answers that if the smoke is eternal the law of causality would be violated he would be holding the view that inference is possible only when the hetu and the sādhya are causally related. But never for anvayavyatireki inference there are instances where the two are not causally related but yet are concomitant. The example of European logic is: All men are organisms, Socrates is a man, and therefore he is an organism, is of the kind. Here the tarka would be, if Socrates were not mortal he would not have been a man; but man and organism are not causally related.

The Naiyāyika is not at all prepared to treat tarka as a from of inference. Udyotakara discusses the point.[7] He anticipates the objection that tarka is Anumāṇa as it is dependent upon the memory of the concomitance between hetu and sādhya. But he replies that Anumāṇa is possible when we have a dharma and a dharmi; when we have a dharmi alone only tarka is possible. Supposing we see something at a distance in dusk and say; It is pillar or man. Then we see a horse nearby; and as horses imply riders,

we conclude that it is a man. Here the horse is not a dharma or property of man, from which we could have inferred the man. What the tarka does here is the negation of the alternative pillar. But this argument of Udyotakara is obviously lame. For unless we are sure that it is man we cannot negate that it is a pillar. But how could we have got that knowledge? Only with the help of horse through tarka. It is immaterial whether the hetu is a property (dharma) or cause (kāraṇa) or some other kind of mark or sign. If it cannot give us the sādhya that it is man the possibility of man being a pillar can never be negated. Further, when Gautama used the word kāraṇopapattitaḥ in the sūtra he means that tarka works with the law of causality, and an effect can be taken as the dharma of the cause.

If then through tarka alone it is possible to get the conclusion, if it is little different from vyatirekavyāpti, and if it can be used only in anvayavyatireki and kevalavyatireki inferences and not in kevalānvaya, is there sufficient reason to separate tarka and vyatirekavyāpti and treat the former as only an aid in establishing the latter by removing vyabhicāraśaṅkā or the doubt that the hetu may be present where the sādhya is present? The vyāpti which is common to both vyatireki and anvayavyatireki as given by Visvanādha is the absence of hetu

wherever there is absence of sādhya.[8] But the form of tarka is: If there is no sādhya there would have been no hetu. One may say that as accepted by the latter Naiyāyikas it is not exactly of this form. Then it would be: If no sādhya then the hetu would not have been produced by it. We have already examined this form a little above; and we may add that even if it is of this form the meaning is the same, for that the hetu would not have been produced may mean also that there would not have been the hetu. Hence it is obvious that tarka is logically, though not always grammatically the same as vyatirekavyāpti.

All Naiyāyikas believe that tarka, is not an inference but only an aid. Curiously enough there are some among them who believe that kevalavyatireki by itself cannot lead to the conclusion but only by producing the anvayavyāpti. Then, we may say, as anvayavyāpti is the only vyāpti, kevalavyatireki is only, an aid, in obtaining it. This line of thinking also supports our contention that tarka and kevalayatireki are not essentially different as Rāyanarasimha, in his 'Prabhā,' a commentary on 'Muktāvalī,' refers to the view of Ācārya, who is probably Udayana,[9] according to which sāmānādhikaraṇya of hetu and sādhya is essential for all vyāpti and so kevalavyatireki would be that vyāpti which is produced by the knowledge of vyatirekavyāpti unaccompanied by the knowledge of anvayavyāpti.[10] That is, kevalānvayi is that vyāpti which is

produced by the sahacārajñāna or the knowledge of the concomitance of the hetu and sādhya; kevalavyatireki is what is already defined; and anvayavyatireki is the vyāpti produced by the knowledge of both types of concomitance. Kevalavyatireki by itself is no vyāpti.[11] We find thus that what Udyotakara says against tarka is practically said by Udayana against kevalavyatireki. The author of 'Cintāmaṇi' also accepts this view, and even goes further to give the vyatireka an anvayi meaning by some twisting. Vyāpti, according to him, may be interpreted as the concomitance of the hetu, which is the negation of the negation of the hetu whose negation is present wherever the negation of sādhya is present, with the negation of the negation of the sādhya.[12] This vyāpti which is really an anvayi is obtained (gamya) by the vyatireki inherent in it. It is quite apparent that definition is tortured. However, the feeling is there that the anvayi alone is the true vyāpti.

We have so far tried to show that tarka and vyatireka vyāpti are not essentially different. Then why do all the Naiyāyikas object to accepting that tarka is an inference? And why do some at least hesitate to say that the vyaptirekavyāpti by itself can produce the conclusion? The argument advanced against tarka, as we have already seen, is that it does not involve the relation between

the liṅga and liṅgi or hetu and sādhya. And what is the argument against the Vyatireki? It is practically the same, namely, the concomitance between the hetu and the sādhya is expressed by the anvayi and not by the vyatireki. But we have already pointed out that it is not necessary for the hetu to be a dharma or property of sādhya; it is enough if the former is a sign or something that goes invariably with the latter. Yet both tarka and vyatireki cannot give the conclusion as syllogisms by themselves. Both presuppose anvayavyāpti. This defect has been noticed by Śriharṣa,[13] who says that tarka is based upon vyāpti, and if the vyāpti is in need of the support of the same tarka there would be the fallacy of anyonyāśraya (mutual dependence) and, we may add, if of another tarka infinite regress (anavasthā). For how can I know that dhūmābhāva or the negation of smoke is the vyāpaka (distributed over) vahnyabhāva or the negation of fire? Or to put it in simpler language, when can I know that smoke cannot be found unless there is fire? Only when and after I know that wherever there is smoke there is fire. If there is any doubt about this positive vyāpti, I can never be sure of the vyatireki, for I still doubt whether there might not be smoke in the absence of fire. It is of no avail to bring in the concept of causality. For so long as this lasts one cannot be sure of the causal relation between fire and smoke, and one begins to question the causal

relation itself. And taking the example of Western logic, unless I am sure that all men are mortals I can never be sure that non-mortals are non-men, and the latter can never help me in establishing the former.

It may probably be said that though in these examples the vyatireki is dependent on the anvayi. It is so in all. When we infer ātmā or soul from icchā or desire, akāśa or ether from śabda or sound, and prithvi or earth from gandha or smell, we do not have an anvayāvyāpti. We cannot say wherever there is desire there is ātmā, because their concomitance or co-existence is not perceived and what the inference wants to establish is the reality itself of ātmā. This inference arises when we question whether there is an entity called ātmā at all. In such instances, it may be said vyatireki or tarka is absolutely necessary.

In answer it must at first be pointed out that those Naiyāyikas who hold that kevalavyatireki operates through anvayi have to say that in these instances the vyatireki can operate through itself or that these inferences are not syllogisms. But no Naiyāyika seems to be prepared to accept the latter alternative. They invent some interpretation like that offered by the author of 'Cintamaṇi' and referred to above, which is really the vyatireki of vyatireki. But the objection against that would be that

unless we know beforehand the anvayi, the vyatireki of its vyatireki cannot give us a knowledge of it. It would be like saying that though one has not seen an elephant he can get a knowledge of it from the negation of the negation of it. That the idea is absurd can be easily shown. If we do not know what an elephant is, how can we say, when a horse for instance is shown, that it is not an elephant? Again, only when we see the elephant can we negate the negation of the elephant. And now, how is the former alternative to be defended? If the inference is a syllogism the vyatirekavyāpti would be: whatever is not ātmā is without icchā. But in the form of tarka, it would be. Icchā would have been present even in what is not ātmā. But the question would be asked: How is the vyāpti obtained? Is it true? Is the doubt of its falsity to be removed by tarka? and what would that tarka be? The Vyatireki of the Vyatireki would be: That which is not without icchā is not anātmā or that which has icchā is ātmā. Put in the form of tarka, it is; that which is not without icchā would have been anātmā or that which has icchā would not have been ātmā. But then this tarka is not helping to prove the exclusion but is assuming its truth. It is an undisguised petitio principii.

We may examine the position with less technicality. The vyatireka - vyāpti is: That which is not ātmā is without

icchā. But how can we know what is not ātmā if we do not already know what is ātmā? It is not enough to know earth as earth, water as water and so forth; we have to know them as not-ātmās; and this knowledge is impossible unless we know as yet; and the inference is made to establish its reality for us. The vyatirekavyāpti would be true only if the sādhya is already established (siddha); and the sādhya would be siddha only if the vyatirekavyāpti is true. This mutual dependence completely undermines the validity of the vyatirekānumāna.

In western logic we find the charge petitio principii brought against every syllogism. In the syllogism, all men are mortal, Socrates is a man, therefore Socrates is mortal, it is said, the major premise cannot be true unless the conclusion is true and therefore assumes the truth of the conclusion. Some modern logician have attempted to defend the syllogism against the charge. We need not take sides with either party here. But it should be noted that this objection is different from the one we bring against kevalavyatireki. Our contention is that this is not a syllogism at all, because it lasts the major premise vyatirekavyāpti cannot be formed unless we have an anvayavyāpti is, the former would be without a basis if latter is not already known.

Our objection holds good even in the classical example of Devadatta, which is interpreted as a syllogism by the Naiyāyikas. The vyatirekavyāpti is some-what differently given in different works. As given by Viśvanātha and elaborated by Rāyanarasimha in his 'Prabhā'[14] it is: Every living being lives either in his house or outside, because he is living; one who is not either in his house or outside is not living. Then, every living being who is not in his house must be outside; Devadatta is such a one; therefore he is living outside.[15] This inference really consists of two syllogisms. The major of the latter has the appearance of the anvayi, the former is obviously a vyatireki. We have already seen a slightly different form in the discussion of saṁśayakāraṇaka arthāpatti. There the Naiyāyika starts with the same form of disjunction, negates one of the alternatives through tarka, then frames an anvayavyāpti.[16] Even the ordinary inference of fire from smoke may be expressed in this form: The mountain either contains or does not contain fire; if it does not contain fire there would have been no smoke. So the latter alternative is negated. Next, any mountain which is subject to these alternatives and has smoke must contain fire; this is such a mountain; hence it contains fire. In the first interpretation which belongs to the later Nyāya vyatirekānumāṇa leads to anvayi. In the

second which belongs to the earlier schools sāmānyato-dṛshṭa with help of tarka leads to anvayi. If we examine the logical structure of the arguments we find they are the same. But to those who hold that the vyatireki by itself can lead to the conclusion, it need not lead to the anvayavyāpti. It would be: Living Devadatta if he is not in his house, must be outside; for one who is not outside and not in his house cannot be living. It is like the inference. The element earth is different from the others, because it possesses smell for whatever is not different from the other elements does not possess smell. But whatever be the form of the argument, our objection against tarka and vyatireki holds.

On a critical examination of the definition of vyāpti, Raghunath rejects vyatirekavyāpti and the kevala-vyatireki type of inference. His verdict runs counter to the Nyāya standpoint. He argues that the knowledge of vyatireka concomitance is not inference at all; it is entirely different from anumiti. The instrumental cause (karaṇa) responsible for the production of this knowledge is a distinct pramāṇa, viz., Arthāpatti.[17]

iii

There seems to be a tendency among some recent interpreters of Arthāpatti to call it a disjunctive syllogism. When Arthāpatti is reduced to the disjunctive - categorical

syllogism, it would assume the form "Devadatta, who is alive, is either at home or is out. Devadatta is not at home. Therefore, he is out". The alternative negated in the categorical minor premise is not directly negated but only through tarka or vyatirekavyāpti. If I go to see Devadatta after ten years and do not find him in his house, I cannot jump immediately to the conclusion that he is living outside; he might be dead. And because the idea of his death conflicts with that of his hundred year life, which cannot be denied, we infer his existence outside. But his death is denied only through tarka or vyatireki. And we have shown that tarka or vyatireki is no syllogism.

But it may be asked: Apart from what the Naiyāyikās say, is it not possible to have a disjunctive syllogism here? Can we not give this interpretation independently? One may give an independent interpretation. But one must be also aware that the two alternatives cannot be obtained unless the doubt of death is removed. If I have the disjunction, Devadatta is either in his house or outside, and negate the first alternative I get the second. But as it is, the second alternative is not known; and if it is known there is no need of the syllogism. For we already know what we want to know. It may perhaps be said that the disjunction can be inferred from the example of a pot,

as the Naiyāyikas do. Living Devadatta must be in his house or outside like the pot which is not destroyed is either in the house or outside. But how does one get the knowledge about the pot? From the observation of some other thing? And of this? From a fourth thing? But do we get our vyāpti like this? There is the more fundamental question: How can we know that an existent thing not found in one place can be found in another? Unless this is known there can be no vyāpti for the Naiyāyikās, and without a vyāpti there is no syllogism, either disjunctive or categorical. That is why the Mīmāṁsakās say that Devadatta's existence can be inferred even when we do not have a vyāpti. When there is a vyāpti we of course have a syllogism. But when there is none too we have inference, which the Mīmāṁsakās call Arthāpatti. But when there is none the Naiyāyikās can have no inference, for inference according to them is only syllogism, which can never work without a vyāpti. (Upamāna or analogy may be called an inference, but one can easily see that the present inference is not an Upamāna). It is in order to have a vyāpti that some of them take tarka or vyatireka as aids. But as we have shown, they cannot be aids because they depend on the vyāpti which they want to establish. And this defect we pointed out even in the view that vyatireki can give the conclusion by itself. If through

Arthāpatti it is possible to have the conclusion without having recourse to vyāpti, it would be illogical to resort to the latter. It would be like framing a major premise for the inference, A is to the right of B, B is to the right of C, and so A is to the right of C. After we know that Devadatta is outside, if we still want to infer it, our thinking would be like the inference from the perceptual judgment, It is red, which would be of the form: It is either red or not-red; if it is not red, then it will have to be both red and not red, which is absurd ; therefore it is red.

We may add therefore that even if we are sure that Devadatta is not dead, there is a need of some thought process, which cannot be syllogism, to infer his existence outside. At a certain stage of mental development all know that things are not dead or destroyed, if they do not exist in the house, must exist outside. But before that stage when the outside existence of things is inferred, it can only be through Arthāpatti. As a matter of fact, examples like theseare not typical. At the state of mental development when we can discuss logic such examples appear to be no postulations. One may ask: Is it not quite an ordinary fact that existent things not seen in one place must be found in another? The significance of Arthāpatti is seen only when we have typical postulation. And

postulation cannot be turned into syllogism. The Naiyāyika inference of ātmā from icchā is a better example. Here the existence of ātmā is postulated, the reality of which they may be doubted. But the vyāpti, yannaivam tannaivam or that which is no ātmā has no icchā is meaningless. For how do we know what is not ātmā when we have not yet known what ātmā is? So there is here really no vyāpti. Yet one may ask oneself. Can I attribute icchā to the earth: No. To the element water? No. Then after all the known dravyas are exhausted we might say: There might be another dravya which we may call ātmā. But this type of thinking is simple postulation and not syllogism. One may frame a syllogism if one likes after the ātmā is postulated. But first, it is unnecessary; and secondly, when through a particular form of thinking we can obtain a conclusion without vyāpti, we have to recognise its speciality. To refute the Mīmāṁsaka position it is incumbent on the Naiyāyika to prove that there can be no inference, not merely no syllogism, without vyāpti. This he cannot. But the Mīmāṁsaka, whose burden it is to show that there are inferences without vyāpti, has proved his case.

iv

The two systems of Pūrva Mīmāṁsa and Advaita consider Arthāpatti as an independent and distinct source of

knowledge because in their view this pramāṇa provides us with the knowledge of certain facts which no other pramāṇa can explain to us. The Mimāṁsakas frequently use Arthāpatti for explaining the Vedic texts by supposing missing words and meanings without which the texts cannot be correctly understood. The Mimāṁsakas also base their beliefs on Arthāpatti in such cases as survival of self after death. The Advaita Vedāntins themselves used Arthāpatti not simply for explaining facts of finite experience like the stoutness of a man who does not eat during the day or the absence of Devadatta from home, but also for arriving at philosophical categories like that of power or shakti. Their main argument may be stated thus: something, as e.g. germ growing into a tree or Joytiṣṭoma sacrifice leading to heaven, would be unexplained or anupapanna if there were no supposition of power.

The Advaitins also find this method useful for explaining the Vedānta texts. For example, the Upanisads sometimes speak of the creation of world by Brahman and out of Brahman; but sometimes they teach that there is no multiplicity, Brahman being the only Reality. This conflict is removed by supposing that creation is not a real transformation (pariṇāma) of Brahman. It is only an apparent change (vivarta) just like the appearance of a rope as a snake. Therefore a new type of objectivity

is postulated called māyā, which is neither real nor unreal. For the hypothesis of anirvacanīya there can really be no vyāpti. The inference of the movement of the sun, which is sometimes given as an example of sāmānyatodrushṭa, is also a better example than that about Devadatta. Modern science denies that movement. However, if we accept its truth for argument's sake, we may say it is more fitting. Here also there is no real vyāpti, though one may be framed and instances may be given. It is of course not as good as an example as the above two. In modern science we get better examples. The postulation of either as the medium of sound is one. In philosophy the Absolute is inferred as the ultimate postulate of our experience is the result of Arthāpatti. And the best example is the proof itself of the law of contradiction, which would be: If the principle is not true, even the proof to disprove it will not be true.

Generally we postulate a principle or entity in order to explain some facts or to remove some contradiction. And as even syllogism is based on the principle of contradiction, it may be interpreted as postulation also. This is what is called the reductio ad absurdum proof. Even in the ordinary example, if the truth of "Socrates is not mortal" is not accepted, then the proposition, "All men are mortal", would be false. Hence its truth must

be postulated. This point is noticed by the Mīmāṁsakās, who say that, if fire is inferred from smoke without the help of vyāpti, the thought process would be Arthāpatti.[18] Thus wherever there is a syllogism we may discover Arthāpatti; but in every Arthāpatti we cannot discover a syllogism.

The Advaintins use this method also in supposing some unperceived facts and principles for explaining experienced facts. For example, they suppose the existence of an objectless blissful consciousness during dreamless sleep, in order to explain the memory we have on rising from such a sleep when we say "I had a comfortable sleep; I did not know anything then". We can, again, trace this method of postulation in the supposition (made by the Advaitins for explaining the world and empirical experience) that the six things viz. the individual, God (Īśwara) pure consciousness, māyā, the difference between the individual and God, and the relation between māyā, and pure consciousness, are all beginningless. In fact, all necessary and indispensable suppositions, such as power or potential energy in things necessary for explaining their effects, the law of karma necessary for explaining the otherwise inexplicable good and bad lucks of persons, and the existence of God,[19] for explaining the distri-

bution of fruits in accordance with an individual's actions, etc., are cases of Arthāpatti. It has thus a very wide scope.

The value of Arthāpatti as providing a methodological basis of the common process of arriving at new knowledge by reading of complex passages should be taken cognisance of, it is undeniable that we do that we knew valid and useful knowledge in this way. I do not know if western logic has tried to explain how this is possible in the actual process of reading without reducing the actual sentence structure to cut and dried artificial forms. At least this is that no one waits for this cumbersome reduction process for feeling certain of his newly acquired knowledge. It seems that as the complex proposition unrolls itself from point to point before my reading eyes these meanings of factual or relational import go on meeting together or parting from each other and in this growing process some elements partly contradict other elements till the final meaning of the sentence as a whole flashes out in the same general way as we find in the classical examples of Arthāpatti. This interpretation is not altogether original with me for the Mīmāṁsakās recognise one particular form of Śrutārthāpatti e.g. Abhidhanārthāpatti, in which the meaning of a spoken word like "door" is understood by the hearer by means of Arthāpatti.

In Arthāpatti the point is that the presumed fact is an aid to resolve the difficulty or conflict and not something which we should all pride in having discovered it anew. Here our consciousness is not that 'we have cognised new fact' as that 'we have overcome a difficult' or united a knot. This situation of Arthāpatti does not call for the cognition of facts but demand the resolution of discrepancies.

Originally, Arthāpatti must have served as an instrument of resolving conflict - both linguistic and factual - in the Vedic texts. The vedic texts present numerous conflicting situations, both verbal and factual. The Brahman is Saguṇa, and the Brahman is Nirguṇa? Now the question: Is Brahman Saguṇa or Nirguṇa? Here is a situation that calls for the resolution of conflict and he resolves the conflict by presuming a fact that 'Nirguṇa' means not devoid of qualities as such but 'devoid of bad qualities only'. The state of mind of a man who offers such a solution through presumption is not that he has cognised a new fact that 'Brahman is devoid of bad qualities'. The Īśāvāsya upaniṣad says that 'Brahman never moves (anejat), 'it is swifter than the mind'. 'It is stationary', but 'it surpasses all fast moving bodies'. Similarly the upaniṣads construe Brahman as the creator of the world and sometimes they maintain that there is no plurality and Brahman is the only reality.

One who is convinced that the śruti does not teach at one place one view and at another place another view, diametrically opposed to one another, but teaches one and the same doctrine, has to show by interpreting that the differences, we witness the śruti texts are not real but only apparent. The followers of Mimāṁsa and Vedānta being convinced that all texts in śruti teach the same doctrine were constrained to find harmony underlying the apparently conflicting passages of different śruti texts. In other-words they had to resolve the conflicts and contradictions in the śruti texts which they did by presuming the missing words and missing facts wherever necessary. Arthāpatti is the principle on the basis of which they could make śruti self consistent.

Viewed in this way Arthāpatti is not so much an instrument or cognition as that of resolving discrepancies or that which helps us see unity and harmony in the midst of the apparently discrete facts. Committed to the interpretation of Vedic texts and confronted with problem of reconciling the conflicting views in them none (others) would have felt the need for Arthāpatti more than the followers of Mīmāṁsa and Vedānta. Because of its importance, Arthāpatti, the principle of resolving discrepancies must have been accepted as an instrument of cognition, subsequently.

It must, however, be stated that the cognitive aspect is not altogether alien to Arthāpatti. In a sense it could be interpreted as an instrument of cognition. One can meaningfully ask as to what one knows from the given facts: 'Devadatta is alive' and 'he is not present in the house' and claim that his presumption 'he exists outside the house' has given him the knowledge that 'he exists outside the house'. But in a situation like this our problem is what do you do? How would you solve or resolve this difficulty and not how would you know. The actual problem to be explained is 'living Devadatta's non-existence in the house' which is sought to be solved by the presumption that 'he exists outside the house' and not establishing or knowing that 'he exists outside the house'. The burden of Arthāpatti is, thus, the resolution of discrepancy between the conflicting facts. The intellectual process involved in the instances of Arthāpatti are those of 'deciding', 'explaining', 'reconciling', 'harmonising', 'compromising', 'settling' and not of cognising. Here the transition of our thought is from inconsistency to consistency, from conflict to harmony, from disquiet to quietude, from anxiety to rest.

V

For the reasons stated above we may say[20] that Arthāpatti can best be interpreted as the transcendental method of Kant or the dialectic of Hegel. In both there is the postulation of something new in order to reconcile

some conflict, to remove some contradiction and explain some facts. For Kant the ideas of reason are the unconditioned ground of all reasoning, which appear as if they can be obtained through an infinite series of pro-syllogisms. But this is really only a way of saying; for no one can exhaust this infinite series in order to reach the infinite ground, which therefore must only be a postulate. The so called ontological proof for the existence of God, as interpreted by the Hegelians, is of this type. Similarly, the categories are deduced by Kant as postulates or hypothesis; and though his proof is called deduction it is hardly syllogism. The movement of Hegel's dialectic from Being to Nothing, and then to Becoming and so forth, is a kind of postulation. Being through self-contradiction collapses into Nothing, and Nothing similarly into Being, and this collapsing into each other settles down into Becoming. But this settling down is only momentary, for process begins again with Becoming. That is, Nothing is freed of contradiction in Being and Being in Nothing, and this contradiction between Being and Nothing is removed by Becoming. Thus each category is posited or postulated in order to remove a contradiction.

It may be interesting to note that the specific logical nature of Arthāpatti is neither exactly the same as that of immediate inference, nor of syllogism, nor of

inference either of the Western type or of Indian type. Syllogisms are by nature subsumptive. Arthāpatti is not a subsumptive process. There is only a general formal similarity of it with dialectic. One may describe if one likes, Arthāpatti as factual dialectic. One fact is partially contradicted by another fact and the contradiction is finally resolved by a piece of knowledge of factual import.

Randle makes a suggestion which I think is worthy of consideration. He criticises the Naiyāyikas for not realising the constructive or synthetic character of genuine Arthāpatti and suggests that the implication present in it is within a system and is therefore truly relational. He gives also an illustrative example from geometrical construction in which new positive truth arises by implication in the concrete new positive truth arises by implication in the concrete character of a system. I am disposed to render Randle's suggestion in a slightly different form and to that when in the first stage of Arthāpatti doubt appears in the form of two contradictory facts a relational system is actively present in the background of the mind and what really precipitates the valid knowledge of the new explanatory fact is the specific relation of the contradictory fact within this system.

According to B.N. Seal the difference of the general philosophical position between Hume and Kant may be said to rest on the application of an Arthāpatti. Over against fact of finite experience as obtained through series of sense impressions stands such general notions as causality. The element of contradiction involved is sought to be removed by Hume by rejection of the ontological validity of the general notions. In the same situation Kant on the other hand proceeds to reason on the line of Arthāpatti. Accepting the validity of both discrete sense elements and of general notions he comes to his transcedental deductions. The line of procedure is analogous to that in Arthāpatti. From the consequent to the only possible antecedent without which it cannot be explained. We have stated that the conclusion in Arthāpatti is a function of the nature of the partial contradictories in mutual relation. It is interesting, therefore, to inquire how would Kant's transcedental implication stand modified if the facts were regarded in other than Humean tradition of absolute difference of body and mind. The objective idealism of Hegel can be said to be the result of an Arthāpatti in which the basic facts of the arguments have been so changed.

I feel tempted to indulge in a little generalisation to say that Arthāpatti may be very rightly accepted as

a proper method of philosophising. The truth that we aim at arriving by this process is such as cannot be attained by perception or inference which being finite experience or being based on finite experience cannot give us such truth. Intuition has been called into supply the required method, but it has hardly been able to satisfy the reasoning proclivity of man. Reasoning is too vague and wide term. Transcendental logic has been offered as the proper method of philosophy since the time of Kant. Our Arthāpatti comes very close to it. It seems to me, however, that Arthāpatti gives a better account of the process involved in the attainment of philosophical truth than the Western transcendental logic. In the first place in its relatedness to scientific hypothesis it may hope to bring philosophy and science in the same line. In the second place in insisting on the importance of the nature of the facts which present apparent contradiction for the correctness of the transcendental conclusion, it may put a curb to wild speculation in philosophy. In the third place it gives a sort of logical analysis of the process of transcendence itself.

Philosophy would appear from the point of view of our interpretation on the full realisation of the relational system which the partially contradictory aspects of experience suggest by their inner necessity and which lying as the reality in the background of our finite and limited experience in making us wonder and doubt.

References

1. Śastra-dīpikā, p.79.
2. Ibid. P.78.
3. Nyāyakusumāñjali, III.19.
4. Ibid. III.19.
5. Jagadīsī, P.904.
6. Nyāyadarśana I, i.40 Avijnaňātatattve arthe kāraṇopapathitaḥ tattva jňānarthamūhas tarkah.
7. Nyāyavārtikam, P.142 (Chowkhamba Sanscrit series, Benares).
8. Kārikāvali, P.480.
9. Ibid. P.795.
10. Op.cit.
11. Op.cit.
12. Jāgadīśī Tīkā P.844, Sādhyābhavavyāpakasādhanābhāvābhāvena sādhanena sādhyābhāvasepa sādhyasya sādhanāt.
13. Khaṇḍanakhaṇḍkhādya, P.623.
14. Kārikāvali, P.796.
15. Here I am not using the Naiyāyika form of syllogism with five steps.
16. Jagadīśī Ṭikā, P.905.
17. Diḍhiti, Kevalanvayi section.
18. Jāgadīsī Tīkā, P.916.
19. Vide Samkara on Br.Sūt. 32.38.
20. Thought and Reality, Part.V.